

Processing–Structure–Conductivity Relations in LLZO Garnet Electrolytes: Synthesis, Densification, Interfaces, and Measurement Comparability

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Abstract

Garnet-type $\text{Li}_7\text{La}_3\text{Zr}_2\text{O}_{12}$ (LLZO) is frequently compared through a single room-temperature conductivity value, although composition, lithium inventory, precursor chemistry, thermal history, microstructure and measurement geometry vary substantially between studies. This review organizes the literature as a process–structure–transport chain. We first define the phase, defect and resistance terms needed for a fair comparison, then follow powder synthesis through forming, densification, membranes, grain boundaries and Li or cathode interfaces. A minimum comparison record keeps nominal and retained composition, cover and crucible, relative density, microstructure, temperature, electrode geometry and fitting model together. The synthesis shows that lithium activity, boundary chemistry and surface exposure are coupled variables rather than independent optimization knobs; a complete LLZO phase diagram and a universal route ranking remain unavailable. Three executable experiments are proposed: a lithium-activity interaction map, a matched-density Ta–LLZO grain-boundary study, and a paired surface-cleaning test after ultrafast sintering. Precursor choices returned by a local model are labelled as model predictions, pending experimental validation, and are not chemical conclusions.

1 Introduction

All-solid-state lithium batteries require an electrolyte that combines rapid lithium-ion transport with mechanical integrity, chemical tolerance and a manufacturable form factor. Garnet-type $\text{Li}_7\text{La}_3\text{Zr}_2\text{O}_{12}$ (LLZO) is attractive because its oxide framework supports a wide range of aliovalent substitutions and can be processed as dense ceramics, thin sheets or composite electrodes [80, 134, 174]. Yet the name LLZO covers samples made with different lithium inventories, precursor chemistries, atmospheres, covers, crucibles, thermal ramps and impedance geometries. A conductivity number therefore cannot be interpreted without the material state and the route that produced it.

This review follows a process–structure–transport chain. It asks how composition and phase stability set the available lithium sites; how precursor chemistry and forming determine the green body; how thermal history and lithium activity set density and grain-boundary chemistry; and how those states are read by impedance, spectroscopy and cell tests. The resulting comparison is deliberately conditional: a route is considered transferable only when the composition, thermal history, relative density, microstructure and measurement definition are reported together. The framework extends the processing emphasis of recent LLZO reviews [23, 149, 180, 208] by making comparability itself an object of analysis.

1.1 Scope and evidence criteria

The target phase is garnet-type LLZO and its Al-, Ta-, Ga-, Nb-, Y-, Sr- and related substituted variants. We include powder synthesis, calcination, forming, sintering, rapid or assisted densification, membranes, grain boundaries, environmental exposure, Li contacts and cathode integration. We use related garnets as mechanistic comparators, but do not transfer their conductivity values to LLZO. We also separate direct measurements from calculations and from nominal-composition assignments. Reviews provide vocabulary and route families, while primary studies anchor claims about processing or electrochemical response [24, 134, 136, 174, 178].

The scope is also informed by a deliberately bounded oxide-ceramic analogy. In $\text{BaZn}_2\text{Si}_2\text{O}_7$, diffraction and thermal-expansion work resolves a temperature-triggered structural transition, while Ba/Sr substitution stabilizes a related high-temperature framework [111, 164]; combustion and crystal-growth studies show that precursor

route and dopant choice change phase selection and luminescence [152, 153]. Partial BaO–SrO–ZnO–SiO₂ and BaO–ZnO–SiO₂–B₂O₃ studies further illustrate how additive content and eutectic liquid formation can redirect phase assemblages [27, 165]. Thermodynamic treatments of Y₂O₃–SiO₂, ZnO–SiO₂ and related oxide subsystems provide a methodological precedent for combining measured equilibria with CALPHAD extrapolation [87, 120, 154]. No exact Ba–Y–Zn–Si–O quaternary phase diagram or thermodynamic assessment was identified in the bounded corpus; these partial-system results therefore cannot establish Ba–Y–Zn–Si–O phase fields. The silicate papers are not LLZO measurements and do not establish LLZO phase fields or conductivity; they are used only to motivate an explicit workflow of phase-diagram measurement, composition spacing and thermodynamic modeling.

The minimum record for a meaningful comparison contains (i) nominal and measured composition, including dopant and lithium excess; (ii) precursor identity, mixing and calcination; (iii) pellet or tape geometry, cover powder, atmosphere and crucible; (iv) sintering schedule and relative density; (v) phase fractions, grain size, porosity and boundary chemistry; and (vi) conductivity type, temperature, electrode configuration, fitting model and applied pressure. Missing items do not invalidate a study, but they limit the strength of a cross-paper comparison. This rule is consistent with the measurement cautions emphasized for garnet electrolytes and critical-current tests [84, 176, 208].

1.2 Near-neighbor garnet systems

Before focusing on LLZO, it is useful to state what neighboring garnets have already taught us. Li₅La₃Ta₂O₁₂ and other lithium-stuffed garnets show that cation substitution changes lithium concentration, site occupancy and the tetragonal–cubic transition, while pressure-assisted consolidation can alter density independently of composition [23, 134, 207]. These results support a transferable principle: phase symmetry and carrier concentration are coupled, but neither predicts the measured total resistance without a microstructural descriptor.

The same family also demonstrates why processing details matter. Thin-sheet, water-based and self-standing membrane studies report dense garnet bodies at thermal budgets different from conventional LLZO firing, and their transport depends on thickness, residual porosity and electrode geometry [47, 192, 200]. Atomistic and microstructural studies further indicate that low-energy pathways can coexist with mechanically vulnerable interfaces [60, 195]. We therefore use neighboring garnets as evidence for mechanisms and reporting practices, not as a ranking of LLZO recipes.

Foundational surveys and application-oriented studies converge on the same reporting problem: garnet composition, processing, interfaces and cell architecture are inseparable when a result is transferred across laboratories [28, 54, 57, 72, 85, 104, 114, 162]. Recent processing guidance adds scale-up, environmental and manufacturing constraints to that comparison [16, 69, 169]. These sources frame the review, whereas the mechanistic claims below are tied to primary LLZO or explicitly marked comparator studies.

1.3 Roadmap

Figure 1 is a reading map. Section 2 defines phase, defect and transport terms; Sections 3–5 follow the synthesis chain; Section 6 reconciles conductivity measurements; Section 7 treats Li and cathode contacts; and Sections 8–9 identify discriminating experiments. The process–structure–conductivity map is used in Section 3, while the coupled-variable feedback map is interpreted in Section 8.

2 Background and Definitions

LLZO is commonly discussed as a garnet framework with lithium distributed over partially occupied sites. The useful distinction for processing is not simply “cubic” versus “tetragonal,” but the combination of symmetry, lithium occupancy, dopant distribution and hydration history. Reviews and structure studies describe aliovalent substitution as a way to change both the lithium count and the configurational disorder that stabilizes a highly conducting state [23, 80, 136].

For a pellet of thickness L and electrode area A , the conductivity inferred from a resistance R is

$$\sigma = \frac{L}{RA}. \quad (1)$$

The resistance may be fitted as a bulk term, a grain-boundary term and an electrode polarization term. A reported “ionic conductivity” is therefore interpretable only when the fitted circuit, frequency range, electrode, temperature and specimen geometry are given. Surface conditioning can change the apparent bulk response, and proton

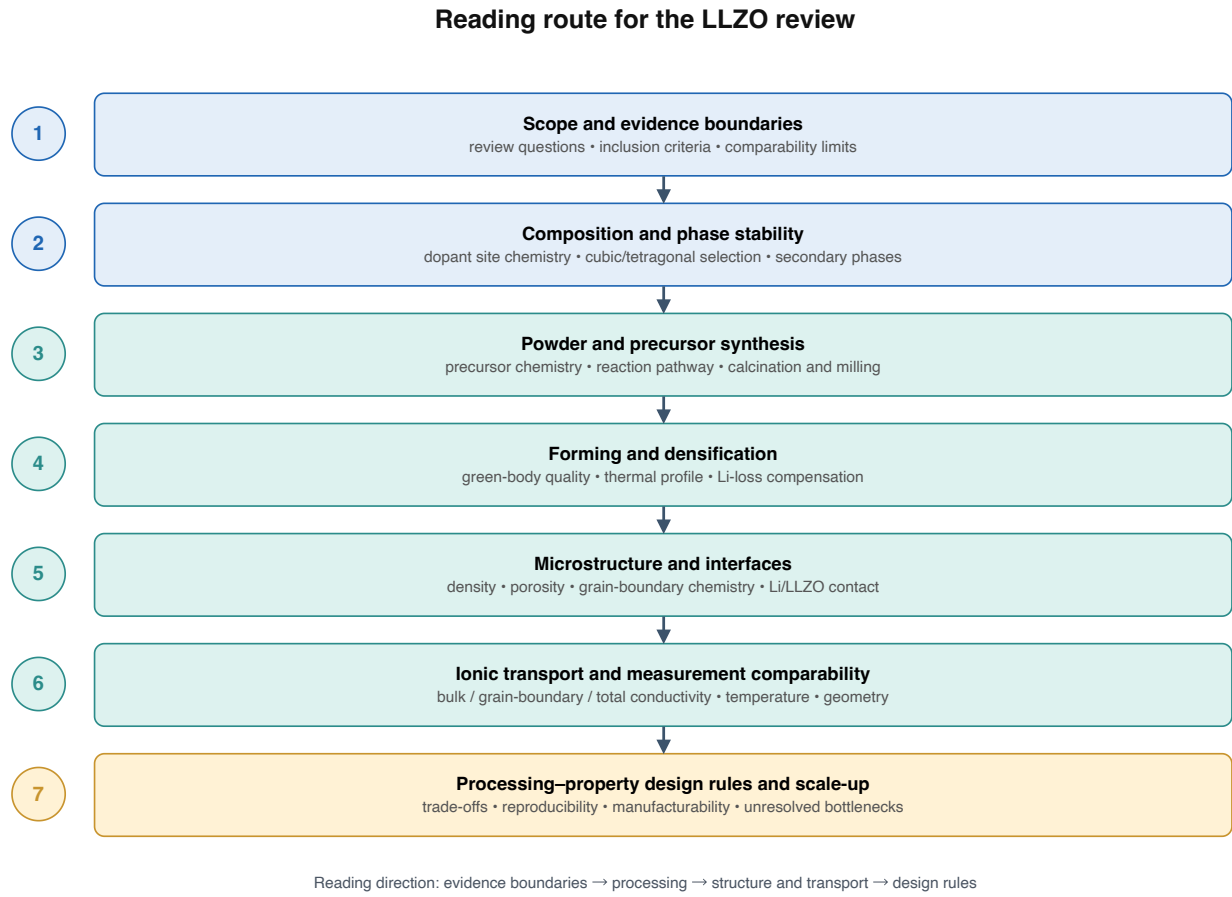


Figure 1: Reading roadmap for the review. The sequence moves from composition and phase state to powder, densification, microstructure, transport measurement and cell integration.

exchange can change processing reproducibility, so cleaning and storage must be recorded alongside impedance [53, 143, 170].

Temperature dependence is often summarized with an Arrhenius relation,

$$\sigma T = \sigma_0 \exp\left(-\frac{E_a}{k_B T}\right), \quad (2)$$

where E_a is an apparent activation energy. A change in slope can indicate a phase transition, a change in dominant resistance or a contact artifact; it should not be interpreted as a new hopping mechanism without independent structural evidence. NMR, Raman and atomistic calculations provide complementary views of lithium mobility, but they probe different length and time scales [60, 68, 93, 97, 123].

Relative density, open porosity and grain size are state variables rather than processing labels. Two samples made with the same nominal composition can have different connected-pore fractions and boundary area after pressing or sintering. Microstructure-aware modeling predicts that tortuosity and boundary resistance can dominate the total response even when the local bulk diffusivity is unchanged [46, 53, 60]. Accordingly, this review uses “bulk,” “grain boundary” and “total” only when the measurement separates them; otherwise the value is reported as unspecified.

The measurement vocabulary is shared with broader oxide-electrolyte and battery studies, but the transfer is methodological rather than numerical. Reviews of inorganic conductors, garnet/polymer composites and all-solid-state interfaces emphasize that conductivity, mechanical constraint and interfacial stability must be reported on the same specimen [1, 54, 59, 104, 119, 132, 138]. Computational descriptors are likewise useful only when their length scale and boundary conditions are stated; LLTO calculations are a comparator and not LLZO evidence [19, 103, 175].

Wet-chemical post-processing offers a further definition of state: structural modeling and spectroscopy show that washing or hydration can alter lithium occupancy, surface phases and the apparent transport response without changing the nominal formula [56, 96].

Surface and environmental effects provide concrete examples of why the state variables are necessary. Thermal cleaning, surface regeneration, ZnO coatings and carbonate-based exposure each modify the near-surface reaction sequence, while air-stability studies show that particle size and dopant chemistry alter the rate of degradation [18, 48, 62, 124, 172, 181, 206].

The thermodynamic language also requires care. High-temperature studies resolve phase evolution and lithium volatilization for selected Al- or Nb-containing compositions, while a complete LLZO composition–temperature–oxygen-potential diagram is not reported in the present corpus [110, 118, 125, 212]. We therefore refer to a local phase relation or measured phase sequence when evidence exists, and identify measurement of a composition-resolved phase diagram as an open experiment rather than inferring a universal phase boundary.

3 Composition and Phase Stability

Composition determines which lithium sites are occupied, which framework sites are substituted and how much lithium is available during firing. Early LLZO studies established that Al, Ga, Ta, Nb, Y and related substitutions can stabilize a cubic-like garnet state or alter the tetragonal–cubic transition, but the concentration that maximizes conductivity is route-dependent [7, 9, 134, 136, 156]. A composition label is therefore a starting hypothesis, not a guarantee of phase or carrier concentration.

3.1 Dopant roles and lithium occupancy

The most reproducible composition-level observation is that aliovalent dopants change both framework charge balance and the number of mobile lithium ions. Broad screening finds that dopants occupying different crystallographic sublattices produce distinct combinations of phase stability and transport, while co-doping can improve conductivity but also broaden the range of secondary phases [7, 9–11, 187]. Nb- and Ta-containing systems are especially sensitive to lithium inventory and thermal history, so nominal stoichiometry should be paired with post-processing elemental analysis [118, 126, 156].

Al-stabilized LLZO illustrates the coupled problem. High-temperature diffraction tracks phase evolution in $\text{Li}_{6.25}\text{Al}_{0.25}\text{La}_3\text{Zr}_2\text{O}_{12}$, and processing studies show that lithium volatilization changes the phase sequence as sample thickness and exposure geometry change [61, 125, 212]. The practical implication is to report the lithium excess relative to the weighed batch, the covered area, the pellet thickness and the measured retained composition. A high conductivity measured after uncontrolled lithium loss cannot be assigned solely to the dopant.

Primary composition studies extend this picture across the dopant space. Ce substitution in Ga-doped LLZO, NbO_2 -derived Nb substitution and Nb-doping studies each report coupled changes in lattice parameters, local electronic structure and electrochemical response [12, 145, 188]. Cluster-expansion calculations for Ta-doped tetragonal LLZO and phase-formation studies of LLZNO/LLZTO provide composition-specific hypotheses, but they still require diffraction and retained-element measurements on fired pellets [101, 121, 157]. Machine-learning molecular dynamics can rank local transport environments, yet its predictions are not substitutes for a measured phase fraction or conductivity [94, 186].

3.2 Local phase relations and the missing global diagram

A combined experimental–computational study maps a local Li_2O – La_2O_3 – ZrO_2 relation, while high-temperature work resolves composition-specific phase transitions [63, 212]. These results are valuable local constraints, but they do not constitute a complete LLZO phase diagram spanning dopant content, lithium activity, oxygen potential and temperature. The literature should consequently distinguish a measured phase sequence from a phase-field extrapolation. The most useful next measurement is a small, compositionally spaced set of high-temperature diffraction and calorimetry experiments with quantified lithium retention, anchored to the local relations already reported.

Earlier structure determinations establish the reference states against which these newer substitutions should be compared. Tetragonal LLZO, aluminum-free cubic LLZO and zirconium-site Ge, Te or Y substitutions show that lithium distribution and framework distortion can change without a one-to-one correspondence between symmetry and total conductivity [13, 31, 64, 127, 184]. Reports of Ga stabilization, simultaneous Y/Ta substitution and Al-free Ta phase stability similarly demonstrate that dopant valence and lithium inventory must be interpreted together [32, 39, 166, 182].

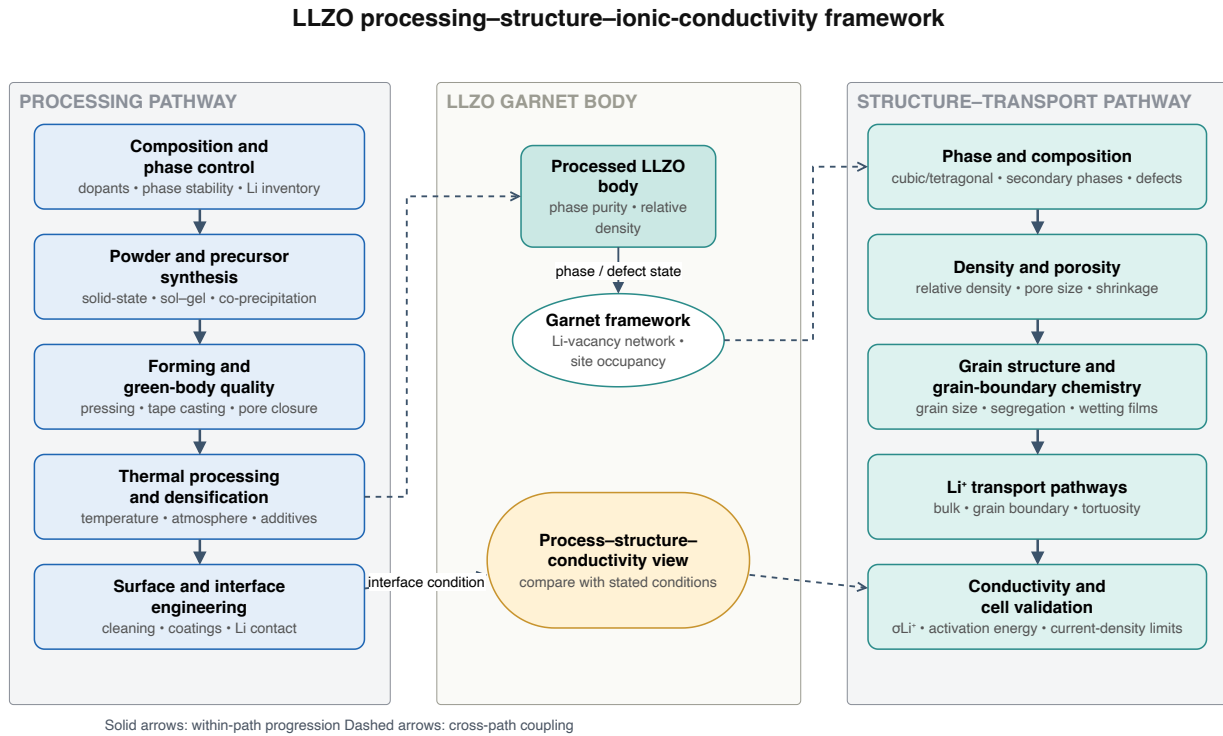


Figure 2: Process–structure–conductivity map used throughout this review. Precursor chemistry and lithium activity shape phase assemblage; forming and thermal history set density and interfaces; these states determine the resistance components measured in a cell.

4 Powder Synthesis and Precursor Chemistry

Powder synthesis sets the chemical length scale that the later firing step must eliminate. Solid-state routes are robust and scalable, but their reaction path depends on oxide surface area, mixing order and lithium precursor decomposition. Sol–gel, combustion, spray-flame and mechanochemical routes shorten diffusion distances or increase homogeneity, yet they introduce organics, residual carbon, agglomeration or a different lithium-loss profile [4, 5, 38, 78, 134].

4.1 Route families

Conventional oxide or carbonate mixing remains the reference route because precursor identities and mass balances are easy to audit. A comparative Al–LLZO study found that solid-state and sol–gel routes can yield different thermal, structural and electrochemical responses even at nominally similar composition [90]. Reaction-pathway-informed synthesis further shows that a short calcination can be effective when precursor availability and intermediate phases are controlled, rather than when dwell time is simply reduced [49]. These findings favor a route description that records milling media, order of addition, solvent or binder, calcination atmosphere, intermediate phase and the reason for selecting the dwell time.

Spray and combustion approaches can generate fine or chemically mixed particles at lower apparent synthesis temperatures [4, 5, 33]. Mechanochemical processing similarly changes defect density and contact area before crystallization [38]. The benefit is not universal: high surface area accelerates both reaction and environmental degradation, and agglomerates can create macropores that survive pressing. Particle-size-dependent degradation in Ta-containing garnet powders makes air exposure time and storage atmosphere essential metadata [62].

The route family is broader than the three commonly compared labels. Low-temperature synthesis reviews, spray-flame work, high-entropy garnet studies and AI-guided precursor screening each target shorter diffusion distances or improved compositional uniformity, but they also change agglomeration, defect populations and lithium-loss kinetics [4, 42, 78, 81, 101, 105, 177]. Processing guidelines therefore recommend reporting powder morphology, precursor hydration, atmosphere and the thermal event that removes organics or carbon [16, 134].

Low-temperature Bi substitution and carbonate crystallization kinetics show why powder handling belongs in the synthesis record: defect chemistry and CO₂/LiOH exposure can alter the surface before the garnet reaction is complete [66, 150, 161].

Table 1: Composition-level observations and the accompanying record needed for comparison.

Composition lever	Recurrent observation	Required structural readout	Representative sources
Al, Ga or multi-dopant substitution	Cubic-state stabilization is coupled to lithium occupancy and defect disorder	Phase fraction, dopant site/amount, retained Li	[7, 9, 134]
Ta or Nb substitution	Conductivity and phase evolution depend on lithium inventory and thermal history	High-temperature diffraction, elemental retention	[118, 126, 156]
Lithium excess or compensation	Excess can support phase formation but also increases volatilization and carbonate risk	Weighed excess, cover geometry, post-fire Li assay	[61, 125, 212]

4.2 Lithium precursors and mass balance

Li_2CO_3 is convenient but can leave carbonate contamination or volatilize during high-temperature treatment; LiOH changes decomposition and water release. Recent precursor comparisons therefore treat lithium source as a process variable rather than a procurement detail [14, 155, 167]. A reproducible batch record should state the assay-corrected lithium content, intentional excess, hydration state, powder-bed cover and the measured mass before and after calcination. When these quantities are unavailable, the phrase “lithium compensated” should be read as nominal rather than measured.

Direct precursor comparisons support this distinction. Li_2CO_3 and LiOH produce different decomposition paths in LLZNO and LLZTO, and Ta-containing batches can retain a composition that differs from the weighed recipe after firing [14, 102, 113, 128, 155]. Older Al-, W- and Ge-containing synthesis studies likewise show that calcination, milling and the choice of complexing route set the intermediate phases before densification [26, 74, 86, 108, 144].

4.3 From powder to green body

Pressing pressure, binder removal and particle-size distribution control the green-body pore network that later governs shrinkage. A small powder that reacts early may densify differently from a coarse powder with the same phase composition. The practical comparison is thus a matched green density and thickness, followed by a thermal profile that records shrinkage or dilatometry. Low-temperature synthesis studies and scalable tape-casting reviews emphasize that powder morphology and slurry rheology must be optimized together with the final membrane thickness [47, 78, 169].

For transfer to thin or composite forms, the relevant precedent includes submicron Nb-doped powders, rapid Li compensation in films and tape-cast garnet sheets [76, 163, 183, 189]. These studies motivate matching green density and thickness before comparing the later thermal schedule, rather than ranking powders by BET area alone.

5 Thermal Processing and Microstructure

The thermal step converts a chemically mixed powder into a connected garnet skeleton. It also controls lithium loss, grain growth, residual porosity and the composition of grain boundaries. Because these outcomes are coupled, a sintering temperature alone is not a transferable process descriptor [24, 70, 126].

5.1 Experimental conclusion bundle

The reported experiments support five bounded conclusions. First, sintering additives or lithium-containing transient phases can increase densification and lower resistance, but the additive may remain at boundaries or change the phase assemblage [70, 117, 173]. Second, lithium and other elements can diffuse irreversibly during firing, so the compact composition after sintering is not necessarily the weighed composition [126, 212]. Third, rapid microwave or laser schedules can shorten thermal exposure and produce dense LLZO or LLZTO, but they create larger thermal gradients and surface-chemistry contrasts than a conventional furnace [6, 137, 203]. Fourth, crucible material and cover configuration are chemically active boundary conditions; Pt or Al crucibles

Table 2: Powder-route comparison with the variables that determine transferability.

Route family	Main opportunity	Dominant uncontrolled risk	Minimum report
Oxide/carbonate solid state	Simple scale-up and explicit mass balance	Incomplete mixing and long diffusion path	Milling sequence, particle size, calcination and Li excess [61, 90]
Sol–gel or combustion	Chemical homogeneity and fine particles	Organics, residual carbon and agglomeration	Precursor concentration, burnout and powder morphology [5, 33]
Spray or mechanochemical	Short diffusion distance and defect engineering	Rapid surface reaction, broad size distribution	Residence or milling history, atmosphere and storage [4, 38, 62]

Table 3: Thermal and forming variables linked to measured structural outcomes.

Process variable	Typical structural consequence	Conductivity interpretation	Representative sources
Sintering aid or lithium-rich transient	Faster neck growth; possible boundary phase or altered lithium inventory	Total resistance can fall without a bulk change	[70, 117, 173]
Cover powder, crucible and atmosphere	Changes lithium chemical potential and surface reaction	Phase purity and surface impedance must be checked together	[77, 146, 147]
Rapid microwave or laser heating	High density at short dwell; thermal gradients and surface layers	Compare matched density and depth-resolved chemistry	[6, 137, 203]
Co-doping and boundary control	Changes grain size, segregation and boundary continuity	Separate bulk and boundary resistance; do not infer mechanism from total conductivity	[2, 52, 191]

should be recorded rather than treated as interchangeable hardware [77]. Fifth, grain-boundary segregation is not an immutable property of the garnet lattice: co-doping, atmosphere and thermal path can remove or create boundary-rich regions [2, 52, 191].

Recent one-step Al–N doping, temperature-window and transformation-toughening studies broaden the thermal evidence while retaining the same caveat: density, phase assemblage and surface chemistry must be measured together [99, 135, 199]. Earlier reactive-sintering and lithium-oxide-additive work reaches high density through transient liquids or enhanced particle contact, providing useful process precedents without proving a universal additive mechanism for every LLZO composition [76, 100, 107, 197].

5.2 Density, grains and boundaries

Relative density is the first microstructural prerequisite for any conductivity comparison, but it is not sufficient. Grain size, pore connectivity, boundary thickness and dopant segregation determine the fraction of current that traverses resistive interfaces. Studies combining atomistic and mesoscale descriptions, together with direct boundary imaging, show that a nominally dense pellet can retain heterogeneous transport pathways [46, 60, 191]. The minimum structural package is Archimedes density, cross-sectional microscopy, grain-size statistics and a statement on open porosity. Air-stability and microstructure-engineering studies show that this package should include surface carbonate and a depth-resolved chemistry when powders or pellets have seen humid air [62, 129, 170].

The same density–microstructure coupling appears in hot pressing, spark-plasma and cold-sintering literature. Grain-boundary state, local pore evolution and the applied current or pressure can change shrinkage and mechanical constraint independently of nominal composition [20, 45, 131, 133, 159, 160]. These are processing analogues, not LLZO conductivity values, and they motivate reporting the green-body density and the spatial distribution of residual porosity.

5.3 Membranes and non-bulk form factors

Tape-cast sheets, bilayer dense–porous membranes and ultrafast-sintered self-standing LLZO demonstrate that the process–structure relation changes when thickness falls below a conventional pellet scale [47, 169, 192, 200, 201]. Drying stress, binder burnout and in-plane shrinkage can produce gradients that are invisible in a single polished cross-section. Membrane reports should therefore include thickness maps, areal density, bending or handling history and the electrode area used for impedance.

Thin-film and scaffold studies supply complementary form factors: lamellar garnet cells, pulsed-laser-deposited Ta garnets, 3D lithium hosts and porous mixed-conductor interlayers all show that current constriction and mechanical support depend on architecture as well as on the ceramic phase [35, 83, 109, 112, 139]. The comparison unit is consequently a characterized membrane or composite cross-section, not a powder composition in isolation.

The process map in Fig. 2 is intentionally read from left to right: a powder route does not “cause” a conductivity value directly; it changes phase, porosity and interfaces, which are then sampled by a measurement geometry. The coupled-variable feedbacks are consolidated in Fig. 3 and discussed in Section 8.

6 Structure–Conductivity Relations and Measurement Comparability

LLZO transport is a hierarchy of local hopping, grain interiors, grain boundaries and electrode interfaces. A high total conductivity can arise from a genuinely mobile bulk phase, from a low-resistance boundary network, or from an impedance fit that assigns a contact contribution to the electrolyte. Atomistic–mesoscale calculations and grain-boundary measurements both show why the same nominal composition can yield different resistance partitions [46, 60, 94].

The mechanistic vocabulary is supported by direct diffusion, structural and modeling studies. Lithium self-diffusion NMR, garnet transport calculations, Raman-informed molecular dynamics and machine-learning-assisted trajectories probe different time and length scales, so agreement among them is stronger than any single descriptor alone [19, 75, 89, 93, 123, 179]. Measurements on Ta garnets and phosphate ceramics reinforce the need to distinguish local mobility from the resistance of a complete microstructure [3, 8, 122].

6.1 What can be compared directly?

Direct comparison is defensible when composition and phase state, relative density, temperature, sample thickness, electrode area, electrode type and fitting circuit are matched. A qualitative comparison is still useful when one of these items is missing, but the text should say which item limits inference. Surface conditioning, air exposure and proton exchange are particularly important because they can change the near-surface chemistry without changing the bulk diffraction pattern [53, 143, 170].

Electrochemical-impedance reviews and critical-current studies make the protocol dependence explicit: equivalent-circuit choice, pressure, electrode preparation and the failure criterion can reorder apparent performance even for identical pellets [84, 116, 148, 171]. Data-driven property prediction is most useful when it is paired with these specimen-level descriptors, rather than when a model is trained on unqualified conductivity numbers [15, 103, 185, 190].

6.2 Transport descriptors

The most useful bridge between structure and transport is a set of descriptors that can be measured on the same specimen: phase fraction, retained lithium, relative density, grain-size distribution, boundary composition or thickness, and the separated bulk and boundary resistances. Raman signatures and molecular-dynamics calculations can test whether a change in the vibrational spectrum is consistent with a change in lithium dynamics, but they should not be used to replace an electrochemical measurement [68, 94, 123].

Critical-current-density (CCD) data require an additional protocol. Current density depends on electrode area, stack pressure, temperature, plating/stripping schedule, voltage criterion and the definition of failure. A

Table 4: Minimum reporting set for a cross-paper conductivity comparison.

Measurement item	Why it changes the result	Preferred report	If missing
Phase and composition	Lithium occupancy and secondary phases alter carriers and blocking regions	Rietveld phase fraction, dopant amount and retained Li	Qualitative only [7, 110]
Density and microstructure	Pores and boundaries add tortuosity and resistance	Relative density, open porosity, grain size and boundary description	Do not rank routes [46, 60]
Temperature and geometry	Conductivity and apparent activation energy depend on both	Temperature sweep, thickness, area and pressure	Values remain condition-specific [53, 68]
Equivalent circuit and electrodes	Bulk, boundary and contact terms can be interchanged by fitting choice	Circuit, frequency range, electrode and residuals	Report total response only [84, 208]

standardized measurement proposal for lithium garnets highlights that changing any of these parameters can reorder apparent limits [84, 148]. Consequently, a pellet conductivity and a symmetric-cell CCD should be presented as complementary outcomes, not as interchangeable performance scores.

6.3 Reconciling apparent contradictions

When two studies disagree, the first diagnostic is a comparison of density, temperature and resistance partition. The second is surface and boundary chemistry: carbonate, hydroxide or a transient glass can lower or raise the measured boundary term without changing the garnet lattice parameter. The third is lithium inventory and thermal history, which can shift phase fraction and defect concentration. This order of checks keeps an apparent materials contradiction from being attributed prematurely to a dopant or a new transport mechanism [110, 126, 155, 202].

7 Li Interfaces and Cathode Integration

Pellet conductivity does not predict a stable battery interface by itself. Lithium metal can dewet, react with a contaminated surface or penetrate a mechanically weak grain boundary, while a composite cathode introduces constriction, chemical gradients and a second tortuosity scale. Direct observations, interface engineering and recent reviews all point to contact pressure, surface chemistry and boundary continuity as co-determinants of cell behavior [174, 176, 208].

7.1 Li–LLZO contact and dendrites

Direct imaging has documented lithium penetration along defects or grain boundaries in garnet electrolytes, and mechanistic work links this behavior to local current focusing, boundary chemistry and mechanical softening [25, 29, 65, 140, 195]. Artificial metallic interlayers, lithiophilic salts, electron-blocking shields and three-dimensional boundary designs can improve contact or redistribute current, but each changes the chemical and mechanical boundary condition [21, 30, 34, 37, 209].

Recent interface studies add several distinct levers: femtosecond activation, dopant-controlled early-stage reactions, entropy-stabilized interphases, organic–inorganic contact layers and molten-salt processing [41, 50, 71, 79, 204]. These approaches are not interchangeable; each changes wetting, electronic leakage or the local stress field and therefore requires a matched current-density protocol.

Electron-blocking shields and diffusion-limited lithium-metal studies provide additional controls for separating interfacial reaction from mechanical penetration [67, 91]. Their value is diagnostic: they identify which resistance or failure mode changes, rather than supplying a universal interface recipe.

The correct comparison is therefore a matched stack rather than a single interface treatment. Report the polishing or cleaning history, interlayer composition and thickness, lithium foil history, applied pressure, temperature, current density and voltage criterion. Recent studies also show that excess-lithium-free processing

Table 5: Interface architectures and the measurements needed to separate their effects.

Architecture	Intended function	Required evidence	Representative sources
Clean or modified Li surface	Improve wetting and lower contact resistance	Surface chemistry, pressure history and symmetric-cell impedance	[21, 30, 37]
Continuous or electron-blocking boundary	Reduce local current focusing and penetration	Boundary continuity, electronic leakage and CCD protocol	[34, 84, 198]
Porous scaffold or bilayer separator	Increase cathode contact area while retaining a dense barrier	Thickness map, infiltration fraction and tortuosity	[51, 201, 211]
Tape-cast or co-sintered cathode	Enable scalable areal loading	Shrinkage match, chemical compatibility and areal impedance	[142, 167, 168]

and in situ boundary engineering can reduce interfacial resistance, yet their values remain tied to the particular surface and protocol [73, 130, 193, 198].

Earlier garnet/Li compatibility measurements and interface reviews identify the same failure modes: reaction products, poor wetting, pressure-dependent constriction and current focusing at defects [17, 22, 36, 43, 55, 58, 82, 88, 92, 98]. They provide context for the newer interlayers but do not justify transferring a critical-current value between architectures.

7.2 Cathode composites and membranes

Composite cathodes expose the trade-off between ceramic connectivity and electrochemical contact. Infiltration into a porous or bilayer LLZO scaffold increases active-area access, while tape casting and co-sintering introduce shrinkage and chemical compatibility constraints [44, 51, 168, 201, 211]. Ga substitution, lithium carbonate compensation and polymer incorporation can change cathode compatibility or low-temperature handling, but the resulting cell response includes both ionic transport and electrode reaction limitations [115, 141, 142, 151, 167].

Scaffold infiltration, polymer–ceramic composites and high-capacity three-dimensional electrodes illustrate how cathode tortuosity and separator thickness enter the same measurement chain [40, 44, 95, 106, 158, 189, 196, 205, 210]. In these architectures, lithium compensation should be treated as an explicit process variable, and separator and electrode contributions should be separated. A cell-level improvement is therefore attributed to the architecture only after electrolyte resistance, active-area loading and areal capacity are reported separately.

Interface improvements should be reported as a change in a defined resistance or current-density limit under a named protocol. A lower initial impedance is not sufficient evidence for longer cycling if the interlayer reacts, delaminates or changes the failure criterion. This distinction is central when translating a process–structure relation from a polished pellet to a composite cell [176, 180, 194].

8 Discussion: Coupled Variables and Limits

The literature supports a coupled rather than linear interpretation of LLZO processing. Lithium inventory affects phase formation and volatilization; the thermal path converts that inventory into a density and boundary state; the boundary state controls how the bulk response appears in impedance and how current is distributed at a Li interface. Reviews that separate “materials,” “processing” and “battery” sections are useful for navigation, but the same specimen-level variables cross those boundaries [23, 174, 180, 208].

Three recurring tensions explain much of the apparent disagreement. First, lithium excess can promote phase purity yet increase volatilization or carbonate formation when cover geometry and exposure are not matched [61, 125, 155, 212]. Second, a transient liquid or glassy boundary can improve densification and lower grain-boundary resistance while changing mechanical compliance or electronic leakage [117, 173, 191]. Third, rapid heating can preserve a fine microstructure and reduce furnace time but create gradients in temperature, lithium retention and

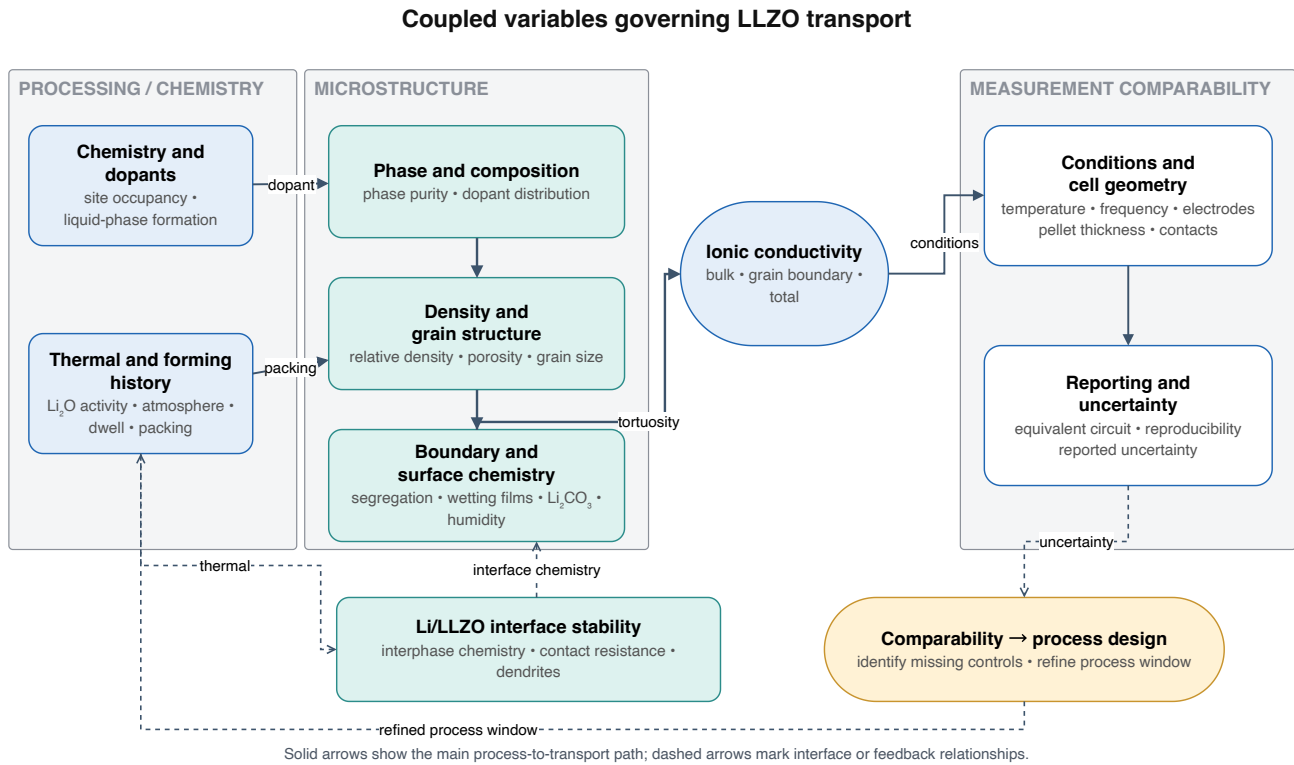


Figure 3: Coupled variables governing LLZO transport. Solid arrows show the main processing–structure–transport path; dashed arrows indicate interface and measurement feedbacks that constrain process design.

surface chemistry [6, 137, 203].

These tensions make a universal “best route” claim scientifically weak. A stronger statement is conditional: a route is favorable for a target form factor when it reaches a specified phase fraction and density with a measured lithium inventory, produces a characterized boundary, and retains a defined conductivity under a reproducible geometry. The same criteria also make negative results useful because they identify which variable prevented transfer.

8.1 A practical comparison matrix

For each paper, the reader can reconstruct the following chain: precursor and lithium source → green density and thickness → calcination and sintering atmosphere → phase fraction and retained composition → density, grains and boundaries → bulk, boundary and total resistance → Li or cathode cell response. Missing links should be marked as not reported rather than silently inferred. This matrix operationalizes the minimum-record contribution and aligns with recent calls for scalable LLZO processing and standardized interface tests [84, 169, 180].

Figure 3 makes the feedback structure explicit. Chemistry and thermal history set phase and density; boundaries and surfaces then mediate the measured bulk, grain-boundary and total responses. Measurement conditions feed back into process design because an apparent conductivity gain can disappear when geometry, pressure or uncertainty are standardized.

8.2 Limits of the present synthesis

The source set contains many title- and abstract-level records, while detailed conditions are available for only a subset. Consequently, the review does not pool conductivity values or fit a meta-analysis. Near-neighbor garnets establish mechanisms but are not used to rank LLZO. Computational studies identify plausible pathways and descriptors, yet their predictions remain model-dependent until validated on matched specimens [94, 123]. Finally, the available local phase relations do not replace a composition–temperature–lithium-activity diagram; that absence is a measurement priority, not evidence that no such relation exists.

9 Open Problems and Discriminating Experiments

The largest uncertainties are actionable because each has a measurable descriptor. The proposals below condense the three experiment plans in the ideas directory; all precursor suggestions produced by the local two-stage model are explicitly marked as model predictions, pending experimental validation. They are research designs, not laboratory instructions.

9.1 Lithium activity during phase formation

High-temperature diffraction and multielement-loss studies show that lithium inventory, exposed thickness and processing path can change phase evolution and final composition [125, 126, 212]. The proposed test is a blocked $2 \times 2 \times 2$ interaction screen for Al–LLZO that varies lithium-addition order, compact thickness and cover state at a fixed nominal excess, followed by a smaller excess-lithium grid for the two strongest interactions. Every condition receives high-temperature or operando diffraction, density and a sister-specimen Li/Al/La/Zr assay; conductivity is compared only after density normalization. The decision rule is a reproducible cubic phase fraction, assay-corrected lithium retention and a conductivity change that survives furnace-block adjustment.

Model prediction, pending experimental validation. For $\text{Li}_{6.25}\text{Al}_{0.25}\text{La}_3\text{Zr}_2\text{O}_{12}$, the local precursor model ranks $\text{ZrO}_2 + \text{La}_2\text{O}_3 + \text{Al}_2\text{O}_3 + \text{Li}_2\text{CO}_3$ above alternative oxide or hydroxide sets. The ranking is a route suggestion only: hydroxide tokens require chemical identity and stoichiometry review before any experiment. The scientific test is the interaction contrast, not the ranking itself.

9.2 Grain-boundary chemistry at matched density

Co-doping and boundary-engineering studies suggest that a lower grain-boundary resistance can reflect a changed boundary composition rather than a more conductive garnet bulk [2, 34, 52, 191]. A Ta–LLZO pilot should reproduce the Li_2CO_3 versus LiOH precursor comparison while selecting two furnace schedules that reach matched relative-density bands. Cross-sectional STEM–EDS/EELS, or a calibrated ToF–SIMS fallback, is required to quantify boundary composition or thickness; impedance and a standardized CCD test are then performed on the same density bands [14, 84]. The hypothesis is supported only if one calibrated boundary descriptor predicts both grain-boundary resistance and CCD after density and furnace block are included.

Model prediction, pending experimental validation. For $\text{Li}_{6.4}\text{La}_3\text{Zr}_{1.4}\text{Ta}_{0.6}\text{O}_{12}$, the local model ranks oxide precursors with LiOH or Li_2CO_3 as alternatives. The ambiguous LiHO token is not a validated reagent; the experiment must use a chemist-verified commercial precursor and record hydration state by thermal analysis.

9.3 Surface layers after ultrafast sintering

Depth-resolved spectroscopy identifies a Li_2O -rich surface layer in ultrafast-sintered LLZO, while thermal cleaning and membrane studies show that surface chemistry depends on atmosphere and post-heat treatment [155, 200, 202, 203]. The proposed paired-sister design compares ultrafast and conventional sintering with 0, 1 and 2 h post-heating near the reported 900 °C mitigation condition. One sister is reserved for as-sintered electrochemistry, one for depth chemistry and lithium assay, one for post-heat chemistry, and one for post-heat electrochemistry. XPS depth profiles, FIB–ToF–SIMS, carbonate spectroscopy, phase analysis and density are combined with the standardized CCD protocol [84]. Cleaning is considered beneficial only when the surface signal decreases, lithium retention and cubic phase are preserved, and the paired interface resistance or CCD improves.

Model prediction, pending experimental validation. The same local precursor ranking used for Al–LLZO favors oxide/carbonate mixtures, but it does not predict the thickness or chemistry of the post-sinter surface layer. Those quantities require direct depth calibration and an inert-transfer control.

These experiments are deliberately orthogonal: the first changes lithium activity, the second isolates boundary chemistry at matched density, and the third separates surface cleaning from bulk densification. Their measurements can therefore falsify a proposed mechanism instead of merely producing another optimized conductivity value.

10 Conclusion

The strongest evidence supports a conditional process–structure–conductivity relation in LLZO. Dopants and lithium inventory alter phase stability and carrier occupancy; precursor route and green-body history set the reaction length scale; thermal treatment, cover and crucible determine lithium retention, density and grain-boundary chemistry; and these states control how bulk, boundary and total resistance appear in impedance. Rapid sintering, membranes and interface layers expand the processing window, but their benefits remain conditional on measured phase fraction, relative density, surface chemistry, contact pressure and a named transport protocol [7, 61, 84, 126, 191, 203]. A complete LLZO phase diagram and a universal route ranking are not established by the present evidence; the transferable result is the minimum comparison record.

The highest-value next experiments are therefore the three discriminating designs described above: first, map lithium-addition order, cover state and compact thickness with assay-corrected high-temperature diffraction; second, test Ta–LLZO grain-boundary chemistry at matched density with calibrated microscopy and a standardized critical-current protocol; third, quantify and remove the ultrafast-sintered surface layer using paired sister specimens. These experiments can be scheduled independently, and each has a clear failure criterion. Together they offer the fastest route to deciding whether a reported conductivity gain arises from phase stabilization, densification, boundary chemistry or simply a change in measurement conditions.

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